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Foreword

The usual purpose of a Foreword is to comment on the nature and contents of a book or, in this case, an edited volume, which I will do. However, the authors uniformly have produced chapters that are highly informative, self-contained, and "speak for themselves," thus providing me with the opportunity to comment on several issues I consider relevant to the topics contained herein. I thank the editors for giving me the latitude to take this route. In a sense, they have allowed me to write a mini-chapter, one that supplements rather than summarizes what already is an excellent compendium of essential reading for those involved in the criminal justice system. Parenthetically, I first met Paulo Marques at the inaugural conference of the Portuguese Society of Psychiatry and Psychology of Justice in Porto, 2007, and the following PCL-R Workshop organized by him and Rui Abrunhosa Gonçalves.

I begin with some words in memory of Scott Lilienfeld, the author of the Afterword for this book. Scott passed away on September 30, 2020, several months after completing his contribution to this volume. He was a prominent and outstanding psychologist with a vast impact on behavioral science and a commentator on public awareness of science and pseudoscience. Articles he co-authored during his illness are making their way through the publication process. Before his death, friends and colleagues posted an E-Card with comments, pictures, anecdotes, and expressions of deep appreciation and respect for him and his extraordinary works. A large number of posts to the E-Card is a testament to the esteem and affection in which so many people held him. My post noted that Scott's remarkable body of theory and research had become enduring contributions to psychological science and society. His intellect and insights into the human condition were inspirational, far-reaching, and wonderfully expressed in his writings and warm interactions with colleagues, students, and scholars. I was pleased to be a co-author with him on an article detailing Hervey Cleckley's influence on current conceptualizations of psychopathy (Lilienfeld, Watts, Smith, Patrick, & Hare, 2018). The link to the E-Card is https://www.kudoboard.com/boards/WI8hPMQ3.

When I began research on "psychopathy" more than five decades ago, only a few dozen published empirical articles on the topic appeared each year. I could complete a literature search in a few hours, even though it meant a walk through the library stacks—endless rows of bookshelves, thankfully unfamiliar to recent generations—to find and make "xerox" copies of the latest articles. Correspondence with other researchers was by mail and slow; there was no internet. Researchers and commentators used several measures of psychopathy, mainly construct ratings, psychiatric diagnoses, and self-report scales. However, these instruments did not measure the same construct (Hare, 1985), an example of the jingle fallacy in which instruments with the same name (e.g., psychopathy) measure different or weakly related constructs.

In their discussion of this fallacy, along with the jangle fallacy (different terms, same construct), Larsen and Bong (2016, p. 529) stated, "The problem of detecting whether two behavioral constructs reference the same real-world phenomenon has existed for over 100 years. Discordant naming of constructs is here termed the construct identity fallacy." Compounding the problem, at least in my view, was the uncertain connection between various measures and the traditional clinical construct of psychopathy, as exemplified by Cleckley's (1941, 1976) writings and other influential clinicians.

The situation began to change in the 1970s, with the development of a research scale based on clinical tradition, the extensive experience my students and I had working with offenders at a prison near Vancouver, and concern about what we were trying to measure. The result was a 22-item construct rating scale, first described at a 1979 meeting in Europe attended by Hans Eysenck. He asked me to submit an article to his new journal, *Personality and Individual Differences*. The scale, now commonly referred to as the Psychopathy Checklist (PCL; Hare, 1980), was the predecessor to the PCL-R (Hare, 1991, 2003). Direct clinical/forensic derivatives of the PCL-R included the *Psychopathy Checklist: Screening Version* (PCL: SV; Hart, Cox, & Hare, 1995) and the *Psychopathy Checklist: Youth Version* (PCL: YV; Forth, Kosson, & Hare, 2003). Collectively, these PCL instruments began to facilitate communications among clinicians and researchers by providing them with a standard metric. Even if some were not in agreement with our formulations, they knew what we meant when we referred to psychopathy. Sleep, Weiss, Lynam, and Miller (2019, p. 1) noted, "Hare's theoretical and empirical work, especially the development of the Psychopathy Checklist and its revision (PCL/PCL-R; Hare, 1980, 2003), allowed a robust empirical literature on psychopathy to develop." This sharp expansion in research also owes much to the introduction and widespread use of self-report measures of psychopathy, some based on the PCL-R and others on general personality theory or as part of an omnibus inventory (Sleep et al., 2019). Together, they helped to extend and broaden interest and research on psychopathy and to illustrate its enormous implications for all segments of society. A significant development was the Society for the Scientific Study of Psychopathy (SSSP), which held its first meeting in Vancouver in 2005. SSSP has become a vibrant, multidisciplinary, and multinational organization that strongly values active student participation, The latter is apparent in students' high proportion of conference presentations and their joint authorship of chapters and journal articles. By the end of 2020, the cumulative total of psychopathy articles exceeded 8000, with a yearly rate of over 600 (Web of Science).

The PCL-R is an integral part of the nomological network of psychopathy and an international standard for clinicians and researchers. Nevertheless, it is by no means the only instrument in wide use. As Miller and Lynam (2015, p. 585) noted: "In general, the modern literature on psychopathy is impressive for the varied nature of assessment methods used." Indeed, this is good for science, but only if the tools have well-established theoretical and psychometric properties and empirical correlates relevant to the construct they purport to measure. They form part of a frame of reference for delineating the construct and guiding its use in basic and applied settings. Unfortunately, not all measures of psychopathy meet scientific and psychometric standards. Their positions in the nomological network (or networks) are uncertain, raising again the possibility of construct identity fallacy. As stated by Larsen and Bong (2016,

p. 552), failure to appreciate the consequences of this fallacy may contribute to "(1) confusion, misunderstandings, and conceptual messes in research; (2) waste of scientific time; and (3) difficulty in theory unification and knowledge cumulation."

Additionally, early research, including my own, treated psychopathy as a unidimensional construct. Although I had reported that the PCL comprised several factors, some were difficult to interpret (Hare, 1980). Later, Harpur, Hakstian, and Hare (1988), using more sophisticated analyses, determined that two correlated factors underpinned the PCL: Factor 1, *A selfish, callous, and remorseless use of others*: and Factor 2, *A chronically unstable and antisocial lifestyle* (p. 745). Harpur, Hare, and Hakstian (1989) replicated this finding and demonstrated that the factors, or dimensions, had different patterns of correlations with a variety of clinical, self-report, demographic, and experimental data. Lilienfeld (2018, p. 80) said of the latter, "This seminal publication was the first to highlight the dual points that (a) psychopathy comprises more than one dimension, and (b) these subfactors often display psychologically important differential correlates." Most measures of psychopathy now are multifaceted (Miller & Lynam, 2015), although a researcher may find it helpful to treat the score on a particular scale as unidimensional. This procedure provides interpretative problems. As noted by Smith, McCarthy, and Zapolski (2009, p. 273), the use of a single score to represent a multidimensional scale "is likely to have reduced scientific value."

The structures of psychopathy scales differ from one another, often following the conceptual views and experiences of a particular investigator or group. As indicated in this volume and elsewhere, some scales include positive attributes or exclude overt antisocial features, whereas others do not (see DeLisi, 2019; Felthous & Sass, 2021; Gacono, 2016; Patrick, 2018). In many cases, researchers use the PCL-R and its factor structure to validate these other scales. Modern item-level modeling procedures have provided strong evidence for a correlated *four-factor model* of the PCL-R and its derivatives (Hare, 2003; Hare, Neumann, & Mokros, 2018; Higgs, Tully, & Browne, 2018; Neumann, Hare, & Pardini, 2015; Roy, Hare, Pardini, & Neumann, 2021). Further, structural equation modeling (SEM) indicates that these first-order dimensions (Interpersonal, Affective, Lifestyle, and Antisocial) underpin a single superordinate psychopathy factor (Hare et al., 2018; Neumann, Hare, & Newman, 2007). It is also possible to use these four factors to model a higher-order two-factor model consistent with the original two-factor model described above.

We can also subject the four-factor scores to latent profile analysis (LPA), a *person-centered* method that reveals homogenous subgroups of individuals that vary in expressions of psychopathic features (Mokros, Hare, Neumann, & Habermeyer, 2021; Neumann, Vitacco, & Mokros, 2016). For example, in the first LPA study of the PCL-R factors, Mokros et al. (2015) identified two profiles among offenders with a PCL-R score of 30 or higher. We labeled the profiles *Manipulative* and *Aggressive*, respectively, and considered each a "variation on the theme" of psychopathy. When we lowered the cut score to 27, a third profile emerged, consistent with Antisocial Personality Disorder (ASPD). When applied to the full range of PCL-R scores, four latent classes typically appeared, labeled *Prototypic Psychopathic*, *Callous-Conning*, *Externalizing*, and *General* offenders (Mokros et al., 2021; Neumann et al., 2016; Roy et al., 2021). Importantly, these latent profiles have theoretically meaningful associations with various external variables (Hare

et al., 2018; Krstic et al., 2018; Neumann et al., 2016; Roy et al., 2021; Vitacco, Neumann, & Jackson, 2005). The LPA of the PCL factors can provide valuable information about subtypes of the individuals described in several chapters in this volume.

The current volume consists of uniformly excellent chapters written by a stellar group of clinicians, researchers, and experts with a strong background in law enforcement. Many authors have produced or edited similar volumes of their own. Some authors deal with issues concerning the assessment of psychopathy and its many roles in the criminal justice system, including risk assessment, sentencing, release decisions, and management/treatment issues. Others discuss etiological, neurobiological, and developmental factors and processes relevant to understanding the nature of psychopathy. Of particular interest is incorporating psychopathy into the realms of criminology, corporate behavior, hostage taking, cybercrime, violent extremism, gang dynamics, human trafficking, and communication/interview techniques. These latter areas are under-researched but of enormous practical value for the well-being of society.

As several chapters make clear, law enforcement personnel have long been aware of the importance of psychopathy in understanding and managing the people with whom they deal (Hare & Logan, 2009; Meloy & Hoffmann, 2014). My interactions with these personnel invariably have been enlightening, for they often were ahead of me in their practical awareness of the strategies and tactics used by psychopaths. A gratifying period was the decade when I was a member of the Federal Bureau of Investigation (FBI) Research Advisory Panel for the Child Abduction and Serial Murder Investigative Resources Center (CASMIRC). I made many presentations at the FBI Academy and worked closely with Special Supervisory Agent Mary Ellen O'Toole. In 2007, Adelle Forth and I conducted the first of several PCL-R Workshops and seminars at the FBI's Behavioral Analysis Unit (BAU) in Quantico. A particularly satisfying event was the publication of a special edition of the *FBI Law Enforcement Bulletin* in 2012, devoted entirely to psychopathy. In the Introduction to this edition of the LEB, I noted that it fulfilled a dream that Supervisory Special Agent Mary Ellen O'Toole, Special Agent George De Shazor, and I had years before (https://www.hsdl.org/?view&did=718311).

I finish with two points, one important and the other reactive. First, as my colleagues and I have stated many times, antisociality is central to the PCL scales and the construct they measure, but criminality is not (Hare, 2003; Hare & Neumann, 2010; Roy et al., 2021). Claims that we consider criminality essential to the conceptualization of psychopathy and its measurement with the PCL-R are patently false, and made with a curious disregard for our published statements and the empirical literature. I developed the PCL-R in forensic settings because the prevalence of psychopathy is high, and the information needed for assessment is readily available. As I have said elsewhere, I might have started my research in a different context, say, financial or political, but there were too many practical difficulties in doing so. As it is, the PCL-R discriminates psychopathic criminals from other criminals. In the PCL-R Manual (Hare, 2003), I pointed out that this does not mean that criminality is essential to the construct of psychopathy, just as studentship is not critical to constructs tapped by self-report measures developed with college students. Further, the PCL-R includes

several forensic-related items, "not as measures of criminality per se, but as indicators of more general predispositions to violate a range of societal standards, in this case, formal and legal in nature" (Hare, 2003, p. 2). Researchers and clinicians who assess noncriminals know that they should omit PCL-R items designed to differentiate among offenders and prorate the resulting score to a 20-item scale. Individuals without indications of criminal activity can and do obtain PCL-R scores high enough to meet the research threshold (30/40) for psychopathy.

The second point is that I find it increasingly more challenging to make sense of the deluge of new journal articles, chapters, and conference presentations that appear every day. Things now are dramatically different from when I trudged through the library stacks decades ago. My age aside, we now have powerful computers, rapid and unlimited access to just about everything, and new generations of researchers. When I do a literature search, I always find an interesting article that cites other articles, which in turn cite other articles, and so on. Unfortunately, until I track them down, I usually have no idea about the methodologies the cited articles used to assess psychopathy. This important information is missing from the title, abstract, and keywords, and often buried in the text, seemingly as an afterthought. I fear that my early concerns about the construct identity fallacy are re-emerging. Part of the problem is the increasing use of self-reports, some with dubious psychometric properties, and validation that relies heavily on their associations with similar scales. The pool of items used in these scales is limited and scale redundancy is inevitable, with correlations among them being moderate to high. Moreover, there may be a growing trend toward the development of two (potentially diverging) lines of theory and research: one based on construct rating scales tied to clinical tradition and the other on self-reports derived from general personality theory. This is not a problem if researchers use multiple measures of psychopathy and can integrate the results in meaningful ways. Theory and research derived from construct rating and self-report tools certainly can have a symbiotic, enabling relationship, with one providing insights and hypotheses to the other. However, the correlations between self-reports and construct rating scales are small to moderate, at best. This is not surprising, for those skilled at impression management and deception are unlikely to respond to scale items in a manner that accurately reflects who they are (Gillard & Rogers, 2015; Harris, Rice, & Cormier, 2013). Most researchers and practitioners no doubt are cognizant of the strengths and limitations of each type of assessment. Still, my reading of the literature suggests that some authors and commentators take it for granted that theory and evidence from self-reports and construct ratings are in part interchangeable. Their assumption may be valid, but we should use caution when using such reciprocal extrapolations of theory and data to understand what we presume is a common construct. Problems arise if different assessment methods lead to different and conceptually incompatible results. In any case, it would be helpful for authors and commentators to be precise about their working definition of psychopathy, and for editors and reviewers to insist that they do so.

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Robert D. Hare

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